

Indian Traditions, Culture and Society

India is a land of rich culture and tradition which teaches people kindness, generosity, and tolerance. Indian culture differs from place to place as it is a multilingual, multicultural, and multi-ethnic society. Indian culture is a unique blend of modern western culture and historical traditions .

- **Arts and Language:** The ancient Indian classical language, called Sanskrit, was one of the earliest Indo-European languages to be developed .
- **Philosophy and Religion:** Numerous significant religious traditions that developed within India have become globally important today .
- **Food and Drink:** The cuisine of India varies considerably across its various regions and ethnic communities .
- **Culture and Heritage:** Indian culture and traditions are bestowed with myriads of rituals, attitudes, beliefs, handicrafts, art forms and many others. The mystery of India is deep-rooted in the culture, tradition, rituals, and custom followed by the people. The culture and heritage of the nation can be viewed touring the several sites of the country .

India's culture is built upon centuries of history and heritage, making it one of the oldest in the world. Indian culture can trace its roots back centuries and enjoys some of the world's most vibrant and diverse customs and traditions .

Module 1- Society State and Polity in India

1. **Society** refers to a group of people who share a common culture, language, and institutions.
2. **State** refers to a political entity that has sovereignty over a defined territory and population.
3. **Polity** refers to the form of government or political organization of a state.
4. India is a **federal parliamentary democratic republic**.
5. The **President of India** is the head of state, while the **Prime Minister** is the head of government.
6. India has a **bicameral parliament** consisting of the **Rajya Sabha** (Council of States) and the **Lok Sabha** (House of the People).
7. The **Indian Constitution** is the supreme law of the land and outlines the powers and duties of the government and the rights and freedoms of citizens.
8. India has a **multi-party system** with several national and regional political parties.
9. The **judiciary** is independent and has the power of judicial review to ensure that laws and government actions are in compliance with the Constitution.
10. India has a diverse society with many different languages, religions, and cultures.

State in Ancient India

- States in ancient India were loosely categorized into monarchy, republican, and oligarchy. Monarchy was the most prevalent type of state in ancient India .
- The state in ancient India was considered necessary, for it ensured peace, order, and happiness. It was a social organization with political power .
- Ancient scholars were not unanimous in their opinion with regard to the origin of the state. The three theories of origin of the state in ancient India are as follows:
 1. Social Contract Theory
 2. Divine Origin Theory
 3. Organic Theory .
- The core issues in the study of political science are the state and the government. The institution of state is studied in relation to its origin, nature, aims, and functions of the state in ancient India .

Theories of origin of State in India

The origin of the state in ancient India has been a subject of study in political science. There are three main theories that explain the origin of the state in ancient India. These are:

1. **Social Contract Theory:** This theory suggests that the state was formed as a result of an agreement between individuals to surrender some of their rights and freedoms in exchange for protection and security provided by the state.
2. **Divine Origin Theory:** This theory suggests that the state was created by a divine power and that the rulers of the state were representatives of that divine power on earth.
3. **Organic Theory:** This theory suggests that the state is a natural and inevitable outcome of the growth and development of human society.

These theories provide different perspectives on the origin of the state in ancient India and the role of the state in society .

Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

The Evolutionary Theory of the origin of the state is one of the several theories that attempt to explain how states or governments came into existence. According to this theory, the state evolved from the family, which gradually grew in size and complexity, eventually forming a state.

1. The theory suggests that the earliest form of human society was the family, which was based on blood ties and the natural bond between parents and children.

2. As the family grew in size, it became necessary to establish rules and regulations to govern the behavior of its members. This led to the formation of clans or tribes, which were larger groups of related families.
3. Over time, these clans or tribes began to engage in trade and commerce with one another, leading to the development of more complex social and economic relationships.
4. As these relationships grew more complex, it became necessary to establish a system of governance to regulate them. This led to the formation of the state, which was a political organization with the power to enforce laws and maintain order.
5. The state, according to the evolutionary theory, emerged as a natural progression from the family, through the clan or tribe, to a more complex political organization.

This theory is based on the idea that human society has evolved over time, and that the state is a natural result of this evolution. It is important to note that this is just one of several theories about the origin of the state, and that there is no definitive answer to this question. Different scholars and theorists have proposed different explanations for the emergence of the state, and the debate continues to this day.

Force Theory of origin of State

The Force Theory of the origin of the state is one of the several theories that attempt to explain how states came into existence. According to this theory, the state originated from the use of force. Here are some key points to consider:

1. The theory suggests that the state was created when one group or individual used force to subjugate others and establish control over a territory.
2. This could have happened through conquest, where one group invaded and took control of another group's territory, or through the use of force within a group to establish a hierarchy and control.
3. The use of force allowed the ruling group or individual to establish and maintain order, and to create institutions and laws to govern the population.
4. The theory is often associated with the idea of "might makes right," where the powerful are able to impose their will on the less powerful.
5. Critics of the theory argue that it oversimplifies the complex processes involved in the formation of states and that it ignores other factors such as economic, social, and cultural developments.

Overall, the Force Theory of the origin of the state provides one perspective on how states may have come into existence through the use of force and the establishment of control over a territory and its population. However, it is important to note that this is just one theory among many, and that the actual processes involved in the formation of states are likely to be much more complex and multifaceted.

Mystical Theory of origin of State

The mystical theory of the origin of the state is one of the oldest theories that explains the origin of the state. According to this theory, the state is a divine institution that was created by God or gods. The rulers of the state were considered to be representatives of the divine power on earth and were therefore given the right to rule by divine authority.

Some key points of the mystical theory of the origin of the state are:

1. The state is a divine institution created by God or gods.
2. The rulers of the state are representatives of the divine power on earth.
3. The right to rule is given to the rulers by divine authority.
4. The state is considered to be a necessary part of the divine plan for the world.

This theory was prevalent in ancient civilizations such as Egypt, where the Pharaoh was considered to be a god-king, and in medieval Europe, where the divine right of kings was a widely accepted concept. However, this theory has largely been discredited in modern times, as it is based on religious beliefs rather than empirical evidence.

Contract Theory of origin of State

The Contract Theory of the origin of the state, also known as the Social Contract Theory, is one of the theories that explains the origin of the state. This theory emerged during the time of the sophists of Greece but gained recognition through the works of three great philosophers - John Locke, Thomas Hobbes, and Jean Jacques Rousseau .

According to this theory, the state came into being through a contract made between individuals and society, or a contract made among individuals themselves . The theory explains that before the state, there was a state of nature where there was neither state nor law, and individuals lived in natural conditions . In this state of nature, individuals' actions were bound only by their personal power and conscience .

The Social Contract Theory is concerned with the legitimacy of the state's authority over the individual . It explains how individuals came together to form a society and a state to protect their rights and interests.

Stages of State Formation in Ancient India

1. State formation is linked with growth and spread of agriculture, consequently trade, industry and urbanisation.
2. In ancient India, this process began with the spread of agriculture along river valleys.
3. Agricultural surplus generated led to trade, commerce and urbanisation.
4. The first states (Janapadas) came about in these river valleys.

5. The pattern was replicated in the South and east.
6. In ancient India, kingdom (rajya) is constituted of seven elements (sapta-prakrtayah) or seven limbs (sapta-anga).
7. According to Manu-Smriti (1-2 century AD), these were: King (swamin), Minister (amatya), City (pura), Domain/ territory (rastra), Treasury (kosa), Army (danda), Ally (suhrd/ mitra).
8. In the course of the evolution of the state in Indian history, monarchies gradually conquered the republics in ancient India.
9. In ancient, medieval, and modern India until the British Raj, monarchies remained the mode of government without any revival of republicanism.
10. Republican form could be revived only after India's Independence in 1947.

Kingship in states in Ancient India

- Monarchy in ancient India was a sovereignty over a territory by a King who functioned as its protector, a role which involved both secular and religious power.
- The meaning and significance of kingship changed dramatically between the Vedic and Later Vedic period, and underwent further development under the times of the Jain and Buddhist rulers.
- The role of a King in ancient India has been emphasized vaguely in Vedic Literature. It has been considered that the Kingship was in most cases not elective.
- Ancient Indians believed that the Kingship arose out of military requirement.
- There were different theories of origin of kingship as well as the state in ancient Indian polity. According to one theory, the king was a subordinate to law, which was made by the society and not him. The community as a whole was given greater importance than the king.
- The ideology and symbolism of kingship have played an important role in Hinduism throughout its history, an influence that continues into the present day. The two great epic texts, the Mahābhārata and Rāmāyaṇa, are narratives of kingship, and the tensions and ambiguities inherent to the role of the king are fundamental to these texts.

Council of Ministers in Ancient India

- The Council of Ministers, also known as **Mantri-parishad**, was a concept commonly known to the ancient Indian science of Society and Polity.
- It was defined in **Kauṭilya's Arthaśāstra** (4th century BCE), one of the most influential treatises of political science.
- The Council of Ministers was next in importance to the king.
- The Mauryas and the Sungas had a habitual council of ministers known as **Mantri-parishad**.
- The Saka rulers ruled with the assistance of a council of **mati sachivas** and **karma-sachivas**.

- The ministers under the Maukharis exercised great power.
- The council of ministers is variously designated as **Mantra** or **Mantri-parishad**, **Mantri-maṇḍala** and **Mantri-gaṇa**.
- The Prime Minister was known as **Mantrimukhya** or **Mahāmantri**.
- He was the leader of the cabinet, and the chief confidant of the king.
- He presided over the deliberations of the cabinet in the absence of the king.

Administration in Ancient India

- In the Indian Administrative System in ancient period, different systems of administration are found to have existed at different periods. The earliest reference can be traced to the Indus Valley civilization .
- From excavations, scholars have come to the conclusion that government in Mohenjodaro and Harappa was systematic .
- Indian Administrative System in Ancient Period was an extremely well-organised one. Ancient Indian political system goes back to about five thousand years or more .
- Administration was sufficiently developed. The head of administration was the king. To advise him in matters of the state and government, there used to be ministers and councillors .
- During the Mahabharata period the state has been called ‘Saptanghi’ and the principal form of government was monarchy .
- There were many small republics also in ancient India. These republics had some elements of democracy in their administration .
- The king (raja) was the supreme head of the legislative, executive and judiciary branches. He was assisted in administration by a number of officials .
- In ancient India big empires were divided into provinces and districts for the sake of administrative convenience, while small kingdoms like Pallavas, Vakatakas and Gahadawalas had only one type of division viz. the districts known by different names like vishaya or rashtra .

Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times

1. In ancient India, people led a democratic way of living although political democracy did not exist in its full form. Monarchy was also popular. After the sixth century, democratic organizations started declining. Kings and monarchs often remained engaged in wars.
2. Politics was considered the only science worth studying. The state and the government were considered basic instruments for the promotion of peaceful and civilized life.
3. Most of the states in ancient India were politically stable. They often remained for long periods free from internal squabbles and intrigues of the

kind we see today. This situation helped them a great deal in initiating measures aimed at improving the quality of life of the common people.

4. The Ancient Indians had for ever subordinated the study of the Science of Politics to that of Theology and Philosophical thought and had never developed it as an independent branch of Knowledge. In Ancient India, there existed an extensive literature on Dandaniti of Arthasastra prior to the time of Kautilya.
5. The King in Indian political thought was assigned with most important functions based on Vedic ideals to rule the people. Based on Vedic dharma Yagnavalkya, Manu, Kautilya and others developed a healthy political tradition for the progress and welfare of the people.

These ideals and traditions from ancient India can still be relevant in modern times as they promote peaceful and civilized living, political stability, and the improvement of the quality of life of the common people. The study of ancient Indian political traditions can provide valuable insights into the development of modern political institutions and thinking.

Conditions' of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

1. In Ancient India, social change meant a shift in social structure. No society is fixed. It varies depending on the nature of the challenges it must address and the requirements it must meet.
2. The idea of social welfare has been entrenched in the Indic civilization since ancient times in the concept of duty as opposed to rights.
3. The welfare of the people was declared to be the chief concern of the State and it was the duty of all the officers and servants appointed by the King to work for the happiness and welfare of the people.
4. Ancient texts explicitly provided for safeguard provisions for the weak and the needy.
5. The Indic being a self-centric civilization, conceived welfare as a duty which the individual owed both to the self and to the society at large.
6. It was this spiritual sense of duty through Dharma which made an individual feel obliged to perform one's duties and work towards Kalyan and Mangal, which resembled the overall good of both the individual and the society.
7. Discharging one's duties in accordance with Dharma was considered as essential for the spiritual upliftment of an individual.
8. This fine blend of duty along with spirituality formed the basis of social welfare, where we see the blossoming of an inward-looking civic society.
9. So, consequently the social welfare activities carried out by the State (king) were understood as the duties or Dharma of the king rather than the rights of the subjects which could be demanded from the state.
10. The evaluation of the performance of a king could hence be judged on the basis of whether he had been successful in discharging the duties he owed towards his subjects and thus in fulfilling his Rajadharma.

11. The Ashokan era could be argued to be one such example of a full-fledged welfare state of the Indic civilization.
12. Ancient Indic literature is abound with instances where the fundamental duties of the kings (state) have been described at length.
13. Through a description of the concept of social welfare of the ancient Indic era, including that followed by the state, the author seeks to argue that it would prove to be an excellent learning model for the present Indian state and its citizens because it emphasizes on one's duties rather than rights, which paves the way to the realization of one's social and spiritual upliftment, thus producing an overall elevation of the nation at large.

The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India

The Seven Limbs of the State, also known as the Saptanga Theory, was formulated by Kautilya in his work Arthashastra. It refers to the seven organs or constituents of the state, which are as follows:

1. **Swamin** - The King: The King is independent and his responsibility for peace, justice, and stability is stressed.
2. **Amatya** - The Minister or Bureaucrats: The Minister or Bureaucrats are responsible for the administration of the state.
3. **Janapada** - The Land and the People or Territory: The Land and the People or Territory refers to the geographical area and population of the state.
4. **Durga** - The Fortress or Fort: The Fortress or Fort refers to the defensive structures of the state.
5. **Kosha** - The Treasury or Treasure: The Treasury or Treasure refers to the financial resources of the state.
6. **Danda** - The Army or Coercive Authority: The Army or Coercive Authority refers to the military power of the state.
7. **Mitra** - The Allies: The Allies refers to the friendly relations and alliances with other states.

This entire set-up of the kingdom was described as the Saptanga Theory in ancient India. The Saptanga Theory categorically identified the ideal type qualities/excellencies of the state, and determined whether a state would evolve into an inferior or superior entity.

Society in Ancient India

- The Ancient Indian society was based upon Varna and ashrams, a four-fold classification of the entire people into varnas and a fourfold division of the life of each individuals into ashrams (stages).
- The Indo-Aryans were originally divided into three classes the Brahman, and Rajanya and Vis.
- Ancient India societies had their distinctive cultures, religions, indigenous beliefs, customs and occupations.

- The customs, beliefs, practices, etc were quite different in the ancient Indian society.
- Ancient India witnessed the evolution of different civilisations.
- Early Indian history was viewed as basically static by European researchers who revisited it in the nineteenth century, and Indian civilization was solely concerned with matters spiritual.
- The inventions and innovations of the people of ancient India include many aspects of modern life taken for granted today including the flush toilet, drainage and sewer systems, public pools, mathematics, veterinary science, plastic surgery, board games, yoga and meditation, as well as many more.
- The ancient Indus systems of sewage and drainage developed and used in cities throughout the Indus region were far more advanced than any found in contemporary urban sites in the Middle East and even more efficient than those in many areas of Pakistan and India today.
- In the Indian empires from 600 BCE to 600 CE, emperors maintained and further developed social systems that had been in place for a long time.

Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India

Purusārtha is a fundamental principle of social ethics in ancient Indian society. It refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. These four aims are Dharma (righteousness, moral values), Artha (prosperity, economic values), Kama (pleasure, love, psychological values), and Moksha (liberation, spiritual values) .

- **Dharma:** This refers to the moral and ethical values that an individual must follow in their life. It is the foundation of the other three Purusārthas and is considered the most important .
- **Artha:** This refers to the pursuit of wealth and material prosperity. It is considered important for an individual to be able to provide for themselves and their family .
- **Kama:** This refers to the pursuit of pleasure and love. It is considered important for an individual to have a fulfilling personal life .
- **Moksha:** This refers to the pursuit of liberation and spiritual enlightenment. It is considered the ultimate goal of human life .

These four aims are not only meant to set an ideal objective but also to convey the right means to achieve them . The concept of Purusārtha is centuries old and is still relevant today .

Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India

The Varnāshrama system, also known as Varnashramadharma, was a social structure that developed in ancient Hindu society. The term ‘Varnashramadharma’ consists of three words - ‘varna’, ‘asrama’, and ‘dharma’.

- **Varna:** Theoretically, the Varna system refers to the segmental division of the Hindu society into four classes. These four classes, or varnas, are

Brahman, Kshatriya, Vaishya, and Sudra. Brahman is the class of the priests and teachers. Kshatriya is the class of the kings, warriors, and aristocrats. Vaishya is the class of traders, merchants, and people engaged in other professions. Sudra is the class of laborers and artisans.

- **Asrama:** Asrama is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras. The four ashramas are: Brahmacharya (student), Grihastha (householder), Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller), and Sannyasa (renunciate).
- **Dharma:** Dharma refers to the moral and religious duties of an individual. In the context of Varnāshrama, it refers to the duties and responsibilities associated with each varna and asrama.

The Varnāshrama system aimed to provide a framework for individuals to fulfill their moral and religious duties and to maintain social order. However, it is important to note that the system was not always strictly followed and there were instances of individuals moving between varnas and ashramas.

Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India

- Āśrama is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras.
- The four āśramas are:
 1. Brahmacharya (student)
 2. Gṛhastha (householder)
 3. Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller)
 4. Sannyasa (renunciate)
- The Āśrama system is one facet of the Dharma concept in Hinduism.
- Ashrams are an outstanding feature of the social organization in ancient India. This system particularly developed during the later Vedic period.
- Liberally Ashram means halting place. But in the Indian social system it implied stoppage or stage in the journey of life with a view to prepare one-self for further journey.

Marriage in Society in Ancient India

- Marriage was regarded as a highly sacred institution in ancient Indian society. It involved the meeting of minds between spouses for material as well as psychological satisfaction.
- It was a meeting of two families in terms of the bond they created between them.
- Many scholars believe that the human race originally lived in a state of promiscuity, where individual marriage did not exist, where all men in a horde or tribe had indiscriminate access to all women and where children born of these unions belonged to the community at large.
- In Hinduism, marriage is considered a sacrament between individuals of the same sex and gender. Marriage in Hinduism symbolizes diverse aspects

of human nature: love, selflessness, trust, affection, and compassion. Kinship relations are often established through marriages, whether between father and son, mother and daughter, or brothers.

- According to Manu Smriti, the laws of Manu or Manava Dharma Shashtra, there existed eight main forms of Hindu marriages in ancient India namely Brahma Vivah, Daiva Vivah, Arsha Vivah, Prajapatya Vivah, Gandharva Vivah, Asura Vivah, Rakshasa Vivah and Pisaka Vivah.

Understanding Gender as a social category in Society in Ancient India

- Gender roles in ancient India were greatly influenced by the society's favor towards men. For instance, when a mother was going to give birth, everyone hoped that the baby would turn out to be a baby boy.
- However, women in ancient India were considered with respect and dignity. During this period, there were women rishis, and they were held in high esteem.
- Gender Equality was one among many such values that was inculcated into the society and practiced as a norm. Almost all scholars today agree without a doubt that women in ancient India held an elevated position.
- Women were provided with the same level of education as men and could be a part of religious or philosophical debates.
- In ancient India, especially in Indus valley civilization, women had a respectable position in society. In the early Vedic period, there was a plethora of opportunities for women.
- Women in ancient India played a significant role. The Rig Vedic Women in India enjoyed high status in society. Their condition was good. The women were provided the opportunity to attain high intellectual and spiritual standards. There were many women Rishis during this period.

The representation of Women in Historical traditions in Society in Ancient India

- A historical understanding of the status of women in early Indian society shows a declining trend in the position of women. Women did not share an equal position with men and were recognized only as wives and mothers.
- In the Indus Valley civilization, the worship of the mother goddess highlights the respect for women as mothers. Women were given equal honor along with men in society and enjoyed full freedom.
- Women in ancient India enjoyed high status in society and their condition was good. The ancient and medieval status of women in modern Indian society regarding equality, education, marriage, and family life, race and gender, religion, and culture is maintained or deteriorated.
- Classical Hindu laws focus almost exclusively on women as wives. Role models and norms for mothers, daughters, and sisters are more apt to appear in folklore and vernacular traditions. Furthermore, most written tra-

ditions emphasize women's behavior in relationship to men: wife/husband; mother/son; daughter/father; sister/brother.

- As a society, India has rooted its morality in myths and theology for hundreds of years and still has a long way to go towards the fair treatment of women today.
- The condition of women became worse off in the Gupta period. The Smritishastras abused them; Manu dictated a woman would be dependent on her father in childhood, on her husband in youth, and on her son in old age. Apart from child marriage and sati, prostitution and the Devadasi system became widespread.

Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India

1. A historical understanding of the status of women in early Indian society shows a declining trend in the position of women. Women did not share an equal position with men and were recognized only as wives and mothers. Their position was subordinate to men.
2. Women in ancient India enjoyed high status in society and their condition was good. The Vedic women had economic freedom and some women were engaged in teaching work. Home was the place of production and women also helped their husbands in agricultural pursuit. In the religious field, wife enjoyed full rights and regularly participated in religious ceremonies with her husband. Women even participated actively in religious discourses.
3. The status of women improved a little during the Buddhist period though there was no tremendous change. Ancient India had many learned ladies.
4. The Medieval period (Period between 500 A.D to 1500 A.D) proved to be highly disappointing for the Indian women, for their status further deteriorated during this period. Apart from child marriage and sati, prostitution and Devadasi system became widespread.
5. The Smritishastras abused women; Manu dictated a woman would be dependent on her father in childhood, on her husband in youth and on her son in old age.
6. Lot of crime against women is seen in the modern society. The Constitutional provisions are not sufficient to get the respectable position in society.

Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

Ancient Indian Hinduism imposed a strict social hierarchy called a "caste system". The Vedas described four main social classes: Brahmins, Kshatriyas, Vaishyas, and Shudras. The Dalit (formerly known as "untouchables") are considered outside the system and treated poorly.

- **Brahmins** were the priests and scholars.
- **Kshatriyas** were the kings, governors, and warriors.
- **Vaishyas** were the cattle herders, agriculturists, artisans, and merchants.

- **Shudras** were the laborers and service providers.

The system of the four classes (caturvarnya) is fundamental to the views the traditional lawgivers held of society. They specified a different set of obligations for each: the task of the Brahman is to study and advise, the baron to protect, the Vaishya to cultivate, and the serf to serve.

Slavery in Society in Ancient India

- When Megasthenes came to India in the 4th Century B.C., he found that slavery system was unknown to the Ancient Indian society. He declared all the Indians are free and that slaves do not exist in India.
- However, Megasthenes' observations about the non-existence of slavery in Ancient India are not supported by available evidences. From the Smritis and other Hindu Law Books, it is clear that slavery was a recognized institution in India in the Vedic Age. The Rig Veda mentions the non-Aryan enemies of the Aryans as Dasyu and Dasa.
- Slavery existed in ancient India, where it is recorded in the Sanskrit Laws of Manu of the 1st century BCE. The institution was little documented until the British colonials in the 19th century made it an object of study because of their desire to abolish it.
- Slavery and empire-formation tied in particularly well with iqta and it is within this context of Islamic expansion that elite slavery was later commonly found. It became the predominant system in North India in the thirteenth century and retained considerable importance in the fourteenth century.

Module 2- Indian Literature, Culture, Tradition, and Practices

1. Indian literature has a long and rich history, with the earliest works dating back to the Vedic period (1500-500 BCE). The literature of this period was primarily religious in nature and was composed in Sanskrit.
2. The two great Indian epics, the Ramayana and the Mahabharata, were composed during this period. These works are still widely read and revered in India today.
3. Indian literature has been written in many languages, including Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, Tamil, Hindi, Bengali, and others. Each language has its own rich literary tradition.
4. Indian culture is diverse and varied, with many different customs, traditions, and practices. These vary by region, religion, and community.
5. Some common cultural practices in India include the joint family system, arranged marriages, and the caste system. However, these practices are changing and evolving in modern India.
6. Indian cuisine is also diverse and varied, with many regional specialties. Spices and herbs play a large role in Indian cooking, and vegetarianism is

common due to religious beliefs.

7. India has a rich tradition of music, dance, and theater. Classical music and dance forms such as Bharatanatyam, Kathak, and Odissi have been practiced for centuries, while Bollywood films and music are popular throughout the country and abroad.
8. India is also home to many religious traditions, including Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, and Islam. Religious festivals and practices are an important part of Indian culture.
9. India has a long history of traditional medicine, including Ayurveda, Siddha, and Unani. These systems of medicine use natural remedies and holistic approaches to health and wellness.
10. India is also known for its traditional handicrafts, including textiles, pottery, and metalwork. These crafts are often passed down through families and communities and are an important part of India's cultural heritage.

Evolution of script in India

- The evolution of writing in India after Brahmi is well understood and needs no recounting. But it may be noted that all the modern scripts of India, for Indo-Aryan as well Dravidian languages, as well as the scripts of Sri Lanka, Tibet, Southeast Asia, including the original scripts of Philippines and Indonesia, are derived from Brahmi .
- Due to differences in cultures, regions' Brahmi script was evolved into different types depending on the region .
- Due to greater emphasis on quicker approach rather than use of monumental inscriptions led to emergence of cursive styles that formed India's modern script .
- Scripts in south India became rounded due to writing on palm leaves .
- The evolution of Brahmi into so many scripts over time in India does however raise the question of what individuals and scribes thought about the changes upon becoming aware—and they were aware, as inscriptions in multiple different Indian scripts have been found together, like Kannada with Devanagari—of the fact that their contemporary writing systems were divergent in separate regions, and were also vastly different from the forms found in inscriptions and ancient documents .
- India has a long history of writing. While India has been a literate culture for millennia, it has also greatly valued oral knowledge. The ancient Hindu scriptures, the Vedas, the oldest of which were composed around 1500 BCE, were transmitted orally for centuries before being written down .
- The script is a written symbolisation of speech. Throughout the ages, the evolution of writing from the image of pictograms and then later on inscriptional images were inspired from calligraphic strokes. Most modern Indian scripts have developed from the Brahmi script over hundreds of years .
- A language usually refers to the spoken language, a method of communication. A script refers to a collection of characters used to write one or

more languages. A language is a method of communication .

Evolution of languages in India

1. Throughout history, the evolution of Indian languages is a constant ebb and flow of influences and reconstruction from early proto-languages to the modern Indian languages.
2. Even in the present day, we see the influence of English, especially within the context of South Asian languages.
3. The northern Indian languages from the Indo-Aryan family evolved from Old Indo-Aryan such as Sanskrit, by way of the Middle Indo-Aryan Prakrit languages and the Apabhramsha of the Middle Ages.
4. Hindi, Urdu, Tamil, Malayalam, Portuguese, and English words pinballed around the globe in the 16th and 17th Centuries, revealing how languages evolve over time as culture is made and remade, and people adapt to conditions around them.
5. Since the Iron Age in India, the native languages of the Indian subcontinent are divided into various language families, of which the Indo-Aryan and the Dravidian are the most widely spoken. There are also many languages belonging to unrelated language families such as Austroasiatic and Sino-Tibetan, spoken by smaller groups.

Harappan Script

- The Harappan Script, also known as the Indus Script, is a corpus of symbols produced by the Indus Valley Civilization .
- Most inscriptions containing these symbols are extremely short, making it difficult to judge whether or not they constituted a writing system used to record the as-yet unidentified language(s) of the Indus Valley Civilization .
- The script found in the Indus Valley from Harappa and Mohenjo-Daro is the oldest known script of India. Unfortunately, till now it has not been read satisfactorily. This has made the problem of the Indus Valley script even more intractable .
- Harappa Script is hieroglyphic in nature and decipherment can be attempted the way Egyptian hieroglyphs were decrypted .
- The Harappan script has long defied attempts to read it, and therefore the language remains unknown .
- The Indus Script combined both word signs and symbols with phonetic value. This type of writing system is known as “logo-syllabic”, where some symbols express ideas or words while others represent sounds .
- This view is based on the fact that roughly 400 signs have been identified, which makes it unlikely that the Indus Script was solely phonetic .

Brahmi Script

- The Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script.
- It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi.
- The Brahmi writing system, or script, appeared as a fully developed universal one in South Asia in the third century BCE.
- It is a forerunner of all writing systems that have found use in South Asia with the exception of the Indus script of the third millennium BCE, the Kharosthi script, which originated in what today is northwestern Pakistan in the fourth or possibly fifth century BCE, the Perso-Arabic Scripts of the medieval period, and the Latin scripts of the modern period.
- The Brahmi script is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations.
- For example, the Lipisala samdarshana parivarta lists 64 lipi (scripts), with the Brahmi script starting the list.
- The Brahmi script was already divided into regional variants at the time of the earliest surviving epigraphy around the 3rd century BC.
- Cursives of the Brahmi script began to diversify further from around the 5th century AD and continued to give rise to new scripts throughout the Middle Ages.
- The Brāhmī alphabet is the ancestor of most of the 40 or so modern Indian alphabets, as well as Khmer and Tibetan.
- It is thought to have been modelled on the Aramaic or Phoenician alphabets, and appeared in India sometime before 500 BC.
- Another theory is that Brāhmī developed from the Indus or Harappa script, which was used in the Indus valley until around 1300 BC.

The Vedas

- The Vedas are a large body of religious texts originating in ancient India.
- Composed in Vedic Sanskrit, the texts constitute the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- The term “veda” means “knowledge” and they are thought to contain the fundamental knowledge relating to the underlying cause of, function of, and personal response to existence.
- There are four Vedas: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda, and the Atharvaveda.
- The Vedas inform the religion of Hinduism (also known as Sanatan Dharma meaning “Eternal Order” or “Eternal Path”).
- The word Veda means wisdom, knowledge, or vision, and it serves to manifest the language of the gods in human speech.
- The laws of the Vedas have regulated the social, legal, domestic, and religious customs of Hindus up to the present day.
- All the obligatory duties of Hindus at birth, marriage, death, etc. are guided by Vedic rituals.

The Upanishads

- The Upanishads are late Vedic Sanskrit texts that supplied the basis of later Hindu philosophy.
- They are commonly referred to as Vedānta, which has been interpreted as the “last chapters, parts of the Veda” and alternatively as “object, the highest purpose of the Veda”.
- The aim of all Upanishads is to investigate the nature of Ātman (self), and “direct [ing] the enquirer toward it”.
- There are more than 200 known Upanishads, one of which, the Muktikā Upanishad, predates 1656 CE and contains a list of 108 canonical Upanishads, including itself as the last.
- These are further divided into Upanishads associated with Shaktism (goddess Shakti), Sannyasa (renunciation, monastic life), Shaivism (god Shiva), Vaishnavism (god Vishnu).
- The Upanishads present a vision of an interconnected universe with a single, unifying principle behind the apparent diversity in the cosmos, any articulation of which is called brahman.
- Within this context, the Upanishads teach that brahman resides in the atman, the unchanging core of the human individual.

The Ramayana

- The Ramayana is an ancient Indian epic, composed some time in the 5th century BCE.
- It was composed in Sanskrit by the sage Valmiki .
- The Ramayana was an important influence on later Sanskrit poetry and the Hindu life and culture.
- Its main characters were fundamental to the cultural consciousness of a number of nations, both Hindu and Buddhist.
- The Ramayana belongs to the genre of Itihasa, narratives of past events (purāvṛtta), which includes the Mahabharata, the Puranas, and the Ramayana.
- The genre also includes teachings on the goals of human life.
- The Ramayana is about the exile and then return of Rama, prince of Ayodhya.
- It consists of some 24,000 couplets divided into seven books.
- Valmiki taught the Ramayana to Rama’s sons, the twins Lava and Kush.
- By tradition, it is known as the Adi Kavya (adi = original, first; kavya = poem).

The Mahabharata

The Mahabharata is one of the two great Sanskrit epics of the Hindus, existing in its present form since c. It is one of the two Sanskrit epic poems of ancient India, the other being the Ramayana. The Mahabharata is an important source

of information on the development of Hinduism between 400 BCE and 200 CE and is regarded by Hindus as both a text about dharma (Hindu moral law) and a history.

Above all, the Mahabharata is an exposition of dharma (codes of conduct), including the proper conduct of a king, of a warrior, of an individual living in times of calamity, and of a person seeking to attain moksha (freedom from samsara, or rebirth).

Puranas

- Puranas are a vast genre of Indian literature about a wide range of topics, particularly about legends and other traditional lore .
- The word “Purana” means “ancient” or “old” in Sanskrit .
- Puranas are considered one of the most ancient Indian literature about Hinduism and are post-Vedic Texts .
- Puranas are known for the intricate layers of symbolism depicted within their stories .
- The composition of Puranas dates from the 4th century BCE to about 1,000 A.D .
- Puranas are popular encyclopedic collections of myth, legend, and genealogy, varying greatly as to date and origin .
- Puranas were written almost entirely in narrative couplets, in much the same easy flowing style as the two great Sanskrit epic poems, the Mahabharata and the Ramayana .
- The Puranas are ancient Hindu texts eulogizing various deities of the Hindu pantheon through divine stories .
- The multiple scriptures known by the name of Puranas can be categorized under the same class as the ‘Itihasas’ or Histories - the Ramayana and the Mahabharata .

Buddhist Literature in Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit

- **Pali** is an old Prakrit dialect that combines several dialects. Lord Buddha delivered his discourses in Pali, and as a result, early Buddhist literature was written in Pali .
- **Prakrit** is a catch-all name for any language that differs from the mainstream one, Sanskrit. Pali is an old Prakrit dialect that combines several dialects .
- The first Buddhist works were written in Pali, the language spoken in Magadha and South Bihar. It is said that Lord Buddha delivered his sermons in Pali, and they have been recorded in the same language .
- Pali still serves as the canonical language of Buddhism in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia. Other Prakrit languages such as Sauraseni, Maharastri, Magadhi, and Gandhari embody various facets of the literatures of both the Brahmanical/Hindu and Buddhist traditions .

- The prosodic variety of Buddhist lyrics is great; about 30 different meters can be distinguished. Pali poems, with their new meters (often based on a musical phrase), stylistic features, figures of speech, and choice diction, foreshadow classical kāvya literature in Sanskrit, whose extant specimens date from a later period .
- Early Buddhist texts are therefore often in Prakrit (especially Gāndhārī) or some nonstandard form of Sanskrit, sometimes called Buddhist Sanskrit, an intermediate stage between some Prakrit and standard Sanskrit .

Jain Literature in Pali, Prakrit, and Sanskrit

- Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion. It is a vast and ancient literary tradition, which was initially transmitted orally.
- The oldest surviving material is contained in the canonical Jain Agamas, which are written in Ardhamagadhi, a Prakrit (Middle-Indo Aryan) language.
- Early Jain literature is mostly written in the Prakrit language, which was a form of the Sanskrit language.
- Pali and Prakrit were the first languages to emerge from Sanskrit. Pali was used for the dissemination of Buddhist ideas, whereas Prakrit was used for the dissemination of Jain doctrines.
- The majority of Buddhist literature is written in Pali, while Jain literature is written in Prakrit.

Kautilya's Arthashastra

- The Arthashastra is an Indian treatise on politics, economics, military strategy, the function of the state, and social organization .
- It is attributed to the philosopher and Prime Minister Kautilya (also known as Chanakya, Vishnugupta, l. c. 350-275 BCE) .
- Kautilya was instrumental in establishing the reign of the great king Chandragupta Maurya (r. c. 321-c.297 BCE), founder of the Mauryan Empire (322-185 BCE) .
- The Arthashastra refers to a practice of political diplomacy that emerged in India .
- Kautilya was a professor at Taxila University and later the Mauryan Empire's Prime Minister .
- The Arthashastra is also known as "The Science of Material Gain" in Sanskrit .
- It is a singularly important Indian manual on the art of politics .
- Kautilya's Arthashastra depicts a bureaucratic welfare state, in fact some kind of socialized monarchy, in which the central government administers the details of the economy for the common good .
- In addition, Kautilya offers a work of genius in matters of foreign policy and welfare, including key principles of international relations .

Famous Sanskrit Authors in India

1. **Kalidasa:** Considered to be the greatest Sanskrit language poet in India, Kalidasa is widely said to have been from the 5th-century, though most details of his life are subject to speculation. He was arguably one of ancient India's greatest Sanskrit dramatists. Three famous romantic plays written by Kalidasa are the *Mālavikāgnimitram* (*Mālavikā* and *Agnimitra*), *Vikramōrva*.
2. **Bhasa:** One of the greatest pioneers of classical Sanskrit drama, Bhasa is said to have lived around 3rd Century A.D. He is one of the earliest known Sanskrit dramatists of ancient India. An Indian scholar, Mahamahopadhyaya Ganapati Sastrigal, rediscovered thirteen of his plays in the year 1912.
3. **Gajapati Purusottama Deva:** Gajapati Purusottama Deva (1497 A.D.) the son of Gajapati Kapilendra Deva, was a great conqueror and a reputed scholar like his father. The authorship of the works, namely *Muktichintamani*, *Gopalarchana vidhi*, *Nama Malika*, *Durogotsava* and *Bhubaneswari Pujapallava*, have been attributed to Gajapati Purusottama Deva.
4. **Satyavrat Shastri:** In 2009, Satyavrat Shastri became the first Sanskrit author to win the Jnanpith Award, India's highest literary award.
5. **Vidyadhar Shastri:** Vidyadhar Shastri wrote two epic poems (*Mahakavya*), seven shorter poems, three plays and three songs of praise (*stavana kavya*). He received the Vidyavachaspati award in 1962.

There are many more famous Sanskrit authors in India, such as Bharavi, Bhartrihari, Bhāsa, Bhatta Narayana, Budhasvamin, Banabhatta, etc.

Telugu Literature

- Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language, a Dravidian language spoken in an area north of Madras, India, and running inland to Bellary .
- It consists of poems, short stories, novels, plays, and song lyrics, among others.
- Telugu literature is divided into six ages, starting from the Pre-Nannayan period to the modern age.
- During the Pre-Nannayan period, only inscriptions were present till 575 A.D. However, in the 11th century A.D., Nannayya Bhattaraka translated the Sanskrit Mahabharata into Telugu. This has revolutionized Telugu literature.
- The literature, beginning in the 10th or 11th century, is mainly poetry and secular and religious epics, with the *śataka* ("century" of verses) as a very popular form .

Kannada Literature

- Kannada literature is the corpus of written forms of the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka and written in the Kannada script.
- The topics of Kannada literature included grammar, philosophy, prosody, rhetoric, chronicles, biography, history, drama and cuisine, as well as dictionaries and encyclopedias.
- According to critic Joseph T. Shipley, over fifty works on scientific subjects including medicine, mathematics and astrology have been written in the Kannada language.
- The earliest records in Kannada are inscriptions dating from the 6th century AD onward.
- Modern Kannada literature refers to the body of literature written in the Kannada language.

Malayalam Literature

- Malayalam literature comprises those literary texts written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala.
- The first travelogue in any Indian language is the Malayalam Varthamanappusthakam, written by Paremmakkal Thoma Kathanar in 1785.
- The earliest extant literary work is Ramacharitam (late 12th or early 13th century).
- The earliest examples of Malayalam literature are ballads and folk songs, which are entirely indigenous.
- Two outside sources, however, contributed much to the development of the later literature: Sanskrit, which was the language of scholarship, and Tamil, which was the language of administration over a long period.
- In the subsequent period, besides a popular pattu (song) literature, there flourished a literature of mainly erotic poetry composed in the Manipravalam style, an admixture of Malayalam and Sanskrit.

Sangama Literature in India

- Sangama literature, also spelled as Cankam, Chankam, or Shangam, refers to the earliest writings in the Tamil language.
- These writings are thought to have been produced in three literary academies, or Chankams, in Madurai, India, from the 1st to the 4th century CE .
- Sangama writings are possibly unique in early Indian literature, which is almost entirely religious .
- The poems are concerned with two main topics: those of the first five collections are on love (akam), and those of the next two are on heroism (puram), including the praise of kings and their deeds .

- The akam poetry is about emotions and feelings in the context of romantic love, sexual union, and eroticism, while the puram poetry is about exploits and heroic deeds in the context of war and public life .
- Sangama literature is often known as “the poetry of the noble ones” and is South India’s earliest known literature .

Northern Indian languages

- Northern India is home to several Indo-Aryan languages.
- The Hindustani lingua franca, which includes both Hindi and Urdu, is native to Northern India.
- There is also an extensive range of western and eastern Hindi dialects.
- Bihari languages, such as Bhojpuri, Magadhi, and Maithili, are also spoken in Northern India.
- Other languages spoken in the region include Punjabi, Pahari languages, and Kashmiri.
- There is no consensus on when the modern North Indian languages, such as western and eastern Hindi dialects, Punjabi, Sindhi, Pahari, and Kashmiri languages, and Hindustani, emerged.
- The official languages in one or more of the states and union territories located in North India are Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Dogri, and English.

North Indian Literature

- North Indian literature is derived from the ancient Indian background, which includes two Sanskrit epic poems, the Mahabharata and Ramayana, as well as the Bhagavata-purana and the other Puranas .
- North India was the birthplace of Kalidasa, who wrote classic Sanskrit plays like *Mālavikāgnimitram*, *Abhijñānaśākuntalam* and *Vikramōrvaśīyam* and poems like *Raghuvamśa*, *Kumārasambhava*, *Ṛtusamhāra* and *Meghadūta* in which the use of imagination and similes remains unequaled by any other literary work .
- Indian literature refers to the literature produced on the Indian subcontinent until 1947 and in the Republic of India thereafter. The Republic of India has 22 officially recognized languages. The earliest works of Indian literature were orally transmitted .

Persian Literature in India

- Persian literature has a rich history in India, starting under the rule of Balban, where a new epic in the history of Persian literature in India began .
- Balban’s eldest son Muhammad, also known as Khan i-Shahid, was a patron of learning and many eminent poets lived at his court. Famous

Persian poets Amir Khusrau and Mir Hassan Dehlvi started their poetic career under him .

- Persian was appointed as the language of administration by Babur and a lot of literate Indians were able to speak the Persian Language .
- Persian literary sources of medieval India reflect thought, social structure, culture, political institutions of that time or the spirit of the age. Persian was the favorite language of rulers the, Delhi Sultanate and Mughals promoted it. That was the time when Persian poetry, literature and chronicles enjoyed patronage .
- Persian literature has profoundly influenced the literatures of Ottoman Turkey, Muslim India and Turkic Central Asia .
- Persian literature mostly came from outside the court, such as the works of Sufism and the “popular literature” created by Bengali Muslims. In the 16th century, the Bengal region came under the Mughals to form the Bengal Subah, and in this era Persian’s impact was much more profound .
- Persian was the official language of most Muslim dynasties in the Indian subcontinent, such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Bengal Sultanate, the Bahmani Sultanate, the Mughal Empire and their successor states, and the Sikh Empire. It was also the dominant cultured language of poetry and literature .

Urdu Literature in India

- Urdu literature refers to the writings in the Urdu language of the Muslims of Pakistan and northern India.
- It is written in the Perso-Arabic script.
- With a few major exceptions, the literature is the work of Muslim writers who take their themes from the life of the Indian subcontinent.
- Urdu literature is a vast field of immense knowledge and rich literary works by famous poets and writers.
- Though Hindi and Urdu have the same root, they have developed and evolved on distinct lines.
- Urdu literature tends to be dominated by poetry, especially the verse forms of the ghazal and nazm.
- It has expanded into other styles of writing, including that of the short story, or afsana.

Hindi Literature

- Hindi literature includes literature in the various Hindi language which have writing systems.
- Earliest forms of Hindi literature are attested in poetry of Apabhramśa like Awadhi, Magadhi, Ardhamagadhi and Marwari languages.
- The origins of Hindi literature is deeply rooted in the Indo-Aryan language called Awadhi and traces its way back to the 11th Century.

- The themes of Hindi literature are majorly comprised of religion and philosophy along with folk stories of the Indian continent. These genres have taken various shapes owing to changing times and issues.
- Hindi literature is divided into four stages viz., Adikal, Bhaktikal, Ritikal and Adhunikkal.
- Literature in the Adikal (the Early Period): Between the middle of the 10th century and the beginning of the 14th century, known as Adhikal, Hindi literature was mainly in the form of poetry.

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

1. **Hinduism** is a major religious and cultural tradition of South Asia, which developed from Vedic religion.
2. The majority of Asian Indians practice Hinduism. The other major religions are Sikhism, Buddhism, Jainism, Christianity, and Islam. A small percentage of the population practices Judaism, Zoroastrianism, and Baha'I Faith.
3. Indian philosophers do not seek to justify religious faith; philosophic wisdom itself is accorded the dignity of religious truth. Theory is not subordinated to practice, but theory itself, as theory, is regarded as being supremely worthy and efficacious.
4. One of the major trends of Indian religious philosophy is mysticism. This term can be misleading, however, as it can evoke Western, and particularly Christian, notions of religious experience, practice, and ends. Nevertheless, many scholars of religion have long used such concepts to study Hinduism and to interpret it for Western students.
5. Hinduism is a major world religion originating on the Indian subcontinent and comprising several and varied systems of philosophy, belief, and ritual. Although the name Hinduism is relatively new, having been coined by British writers in the first decades of the 19th century, it refers to a rich cumulative tradition of texts and practices.
6. Most Indians believe in God and say religion is very important in their lives. Nearly all Indians say they believe in God (97%), and roughly 80% of people in most religious groups say they are absolutely certain that God exists. The main exception is Buddhists, one-third of whom say they do not believe in God.

Pre-Vedic Religion in India

- Pre-Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs and practices that existed in India before the arrival of the Aryans and the composition of the Vedas.
- The early Dravidian religion constituted a non-Vedic form of Hinduism in that they were either historically or are at present Āgamic. The Agamas are non-Vedic in origin, and have been dated either as post-Vedic texts,

or as pre-Vedic compositions .

- The Indus Valley Civilization, also known as the Harappan Civilization, is considered to be a pre-Vedic civilization .
- The nature of the religious beliefs and practices of the Aryans is known from the Rig Veda. They believed in many gods like Indra, Varuna, Agni, Surya, and Rudra .
- Vedism, also called Vedic religion, is the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran. It takes its name from the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas .
- Vedism is the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials .

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- The Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs of some Vedic Indo-Aryan tribes, the arya, who migrated into the Indus River valley region of the Indian subcontinent after the collapse of the Indus Valley Civilisation .
- The historical Vedic religion constituted the religious ideas and practices among some of the Indo-Aryan peoples of the northwest Indian subcontinent (Punjab and the western Ganges plain) during the Vedic period (1500–500 BCE) .

Buddhism in India

- Buddhism started in India over 2,600 years ago as a way of life that had the potential of transforming a person .
- It is one of the important religions of South and South-Eastern Asian countries .
- The religion is based upon the teachings and life experiences of its founder Siddhartha Gautam, born in circa 563 BCE .
- During its first century of existence, Buddhism spread from its place of origin in Magadha and Kosala throughout much of northern India, including the areas of Mathura and Ujjayani in the west .
- Buddhism spread outside of Magadha starting in the Buddha's lifetime .
- Mahākāśyapa, a disciple of the Buddha, presided over the first Buddhist council held at Rājagṛha .
- The Second Buddhist Council is said to have taken place at Vaiśālī .
- The Third Buddhist Council was held at Pāṭaliputra .

- India is organising an international conference on ‘shared Buddhist heritage’ here on March 14-15, as it seeks to focus on the country’s civilisational connect with the Shanghai Cooperation Organization (SCO) nations .
- Indian Buddhism, having become primarily a monastic movement, seems to have lost touch with its lay supporters .
- Many monasteries had become very wealthy, so much so that they were able to employ indentured slaves and paid labourers to care for the monks and to tend the lands they owned .

Jainism in India

- Jainism, also known as Jain Dharma, is an Indian religion .
- It is one of the three most ancient religions of India, with roots that go back to at least the mid-first century B.C.E .
- The spiritual goal of Jainism is to become liberated from the endless cycle of rebirth and to achieve an all-knowing state called moksha .
- Jainism teaches that the path to enlightenment is through nonviolence and reducing harm to living things (including plants and animals) as much as possible .
- Jains are the only religious group in India where a majority say they are members of a higher General Category caste .
- On January 20, 2014, the Government of India awarded the minority status to the Jain community in India .
- Along with Hinduism and Buddhism, Jainism is one of the three most ancient Indian religious traditions still in existence and an integral part of South Asian religious beliefs and practices .

Six System Indian Philosophy

The Six Systems of Indian Philosophy are philosophical traditions that originated in the Indian subcontinent. These systems are known as Vaisheshika, Nyaya, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva Mimamsa, and Vedanta or Uttara Mimamsa.

1. **Nyaya** - Founded by Akshapada Gautama, this school deals with logic and epistemology. It is known for its analysis of logic and its means of knowledge known as inference .
2. **Vaisheshika** - This is the atomistic school of Indian Philosophy.
3. **Samkhya** - This is an extremely complex school of philosophy that goes deep into the understanding of the creator and the creation.
4. **Yoga** - This system is closely related to the Samkhya philosophy.
5. **Purva Mimamsa** - This system focuses on the interpretation of the Vedas.
6. **Vedanta or Uttara Mimamsa** - This system is the conclusion of the Vedas and applies to the Upanishads, which were elaborations of the Vedas, and to the school that arose out of the study of the Upanishads.

Each of these systems differs in one way or the other in terms of its concepts, phenomena, laws, and dogmas.

Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta

- Shankaracharya, also known as Adi Shankara, was an Indian philosopher and theologian who expounded the doctrine of Advaita Vedanta.
- He renounced worldly pleasures at a very young age and amalgamated the ideologies of ancient Advaita Vedanta, explaining the basic ideas of the Upanishads.
- Shankaracharya is the most renowned exponent of the Advaita Vedanta school of philosophy, from whose doctrines the main currents of modern Indian thought are derived.
- He established mathas, which are thought to have aided in the historical growth, renewal, and dissemination of his philosophy.
- Shankara is one of the most widely known and influential Indian philosophers from the classical period and the most authoritative philosopher of Advaita Vedanta.
- He is revered by Advaita Vedanta's teaching tradition and monastic lineages and continues to influence virtually all contemporary lineages today.
- The cultural influence of Shankara and Advaita Vedanta started only centuries later, in the Vijayanagara Empire in the 14th century, when Sringeri matha started to receive patronage from the kings of the Vijayanagara Empire and became a powerful institution.

Various Philosophical Doctrines in India

Indian philosophy refers to the systems of thought and reflection that were developed by the civilizations of the Indian subcontinent. These include both orthodox (astika) systems, namely, the Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Purva-Mimamsa (or Mimamsa), and Vedanta schools of philosophy, and unorthodox (nastika) systems, such as Buddhism and Jainism .

Some common themes among Indian philosophies include concepts such as dharma, karma, samsara, reincarnation, dukkha, renunciation, and meditation. Almost all of them focus on the ultimate goal of liberation of the individual through a diverse range of spiritual practices (moksha, nirvana) .

Indian thought has been concerned with various philosophical problems, significant among which are the nature of the world (cosmology), the nature of reality (metaphysics), logic, the nature of knowledge (epistemology), ethics, and the philosophy of religion .

Indian philosophy accepts the authority of ancient philosophers and innovations are represented as extensions of older systems of thought. Flexibility and the tendency to synthesize are also characteristic of Indian philosophy. Indian schools

generally embody the doctrines of karma and rebirth; man must be perfected before he can achieve salvation .

Heterodox Sects in India

Heterodox sects refer to the religious movements that arose in ancient India as a challenge to the orthodox Brahmanical traditions. These sects were founded by ascetic wanderers and teachers who attracted groups of followers and established various sects. Their philosophies encompassed antinomian (belief that divine grace takes away the necessity of obeying moral law), materialist and fatalist elements.

Some of the major heterodox sects that arose in ancient India include:

1. **Jainism:** Founded by Mahavira, the 24th Tirthankara, in the 6th century BCE. Jainism is an ascetic religion that emphasizes non-violence and the attainment of liberation through the purification of the soul.
2. **Ajivika:** Founded by Makkhali Gosala in the 5th century BCE, Ajivika was a Śramaṇa movement and a major rival of Vedic religion, early Buddhism, and Jainism.
3. **Cārvāka:** Also known as Lokayata, Cārvāka was a materialist and atheist philosophical movement that rejected the authority of the Vedas and the existence of an afterlife.

These sects represented a significant challenge to the orthodox Brahmanical traditions and played an important role in the development of Indian philosophy and religion. They continue to have a significant influence on Indian culture and society to this day.

Bhakti Movement in India

- The Bhakti movement was a significant religious movement in medieval Hinduism that sought to bring religious reforms to all strata of society by adopting the method of devotion to achieve salvation.
- Bhakti movement in Hinduism refers to ideas and engagement that emerged in the medieval era on love and devotion to religious concepts built around one or more gods and goddesses.
- Bhakti movement preached against the caste system using the local languages so that the message reached the masses. One who practices bhakti is called a bhakta.
- The movement gave a new dimension to ancient beliefs and values and it initiated great changes in the prevailing social condition.
- Bhakti, in Hinduism, is a movement emphasizing the mutual intense emotional attachment and love of a devotee toward a personal god and of the god for the devotee.
- According to the Bhagavadgita, a Hindu religious text, the path of bhakti, or bhakti-marga, is superior to the two other religious approaches.

- The Bhakti movement was a trend that took place in the faith of Hinduism during medieval times, specifically, around the time of the late seventh century up until the seventeenth century.

Sufi Movement in India

- The Sufi movement was a socio-religious movement that took place in the Indian subcontinent, originating in North India and continuing its presence as a strong force until the seventeenth century.
- Sufism has a history in India evolving for over 1,000 years and has been a leading entity increasing the reaches of Islam throughout South Asia.
- In India, the Sufi movement began in 1300 A.D. and spread to South India during the 15th century.
- The exponents of this movement were unorthodox Muslim saints who had a deep study of vedantic philosophy and Buddhism of India. They had gone through various religious texts of India and had come in contact with great sages and seers of India.
- Sufism formed one of the cultures of resistance which has existed in the social fabric of Persia since antiquity.

Socio-religious reform movement of 19th century in India

- The socio-religious reform movements of the 19th century provided the soil for the growth of Indian Nationalism.
- The main reason for the emergence of these reform movements was the spread of western education and liberal ideas.
- These reforms started in Bengal and soon spread to all parts of India.
- The 19th century was a period of transition and contestation in the socio-religious sphere as three streams: of reform, revival, and rejection of ancient cultural values were woven around the socio-religious movement or social reform movement initiated by eminent intelligentsia of vision and foresight.
- The Indian society in the first half of the 19th century was caste-ridden, decadent, and rigid. It followed certain practices that were not in keeping with humanitarian feelings or values but were still being followed in the name of religion.
- The social and religious reform in North India was spearheaded by Swami Dayanand Saraswati (1824-1883) who founded the Arya Samaj in 1875. This society strove against idolatry, polytheism, rituals, priesthood, animal sacrifice, child marriage, and the caste system. It also encouraged the dissemination of western scientific knowledge.

Modern religious practices in India

India is a country with a diverse range of religious practices and beliefs. According to the 2011 census, the majority of the population practices Hinduism

(79.8%), followed by Islam (14.2%), Christianity (2.3%), Sikhism (1.7%), Buddhism (0.7%), and Jainism (0.4%). Zoroastrianism, Sanamahism, and Judaism also have an ancient history in India and each has several thousands of Indian adherents.

- **Hinduism** is the dominant religion in India, with around 80% of the population identifying as Hindu.
- **Islam** is the second most prevalent religion in India, with about 14% of the population adhering to it.
- **Christianity** is practiced by about 2% of the population.
- **Buddhism** is practiced by about 1% of the population.
- **Sikhism, Jainism, and Zoroastrianism** are also practiced in India, with smaller numbers of adherents.

Religion still plays a significant role in the lives of most Indians, even though India is a secular country. After living side by side for generations, India's minority groups often engage in practices or hold beliefs that are more closely associated with Hindu traditions than with their own.

Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System

1. Science and Management: Science and management are two distinct fields of study, but they are closely related. Science is the study of the natural world and its phenomena, while management is the study of how to effectively organize and utilize resources to achieve specific goals. Both fields rely on the use of data, analysis, and critical thinking to make informed decisions.
2. Indian Knowledge System: The Indian knowledge system is a rich and diverse tradition of knowledge and wisdom that has developed over thousands of years. It encompasses a wide range of disciplines, including philosophy, mathematics, astronomy, medicine, and the arts. The Indian knowledge system is characterized by its holistic approach, which seeks to understand the interconnectedness of all things.
3. Integration of Science, Management, and Indian Knowledge System: The integration of science, management, and the Indian knowledge system can lead to a more comprehensive and effective approach to problem-solving. By combining the analytical and data-driven methods of science and management with the holistic and intuitive insights of the Indian knowledge system, it is possible to develop innovative solutions that take into account the complex and interconnected nature of the world.
4. Applications: The integration of science, management, and the Indian knowledge system has many practical applications. For example, in the field of healthcare, this approach can be used to develop more effective and holistic treatments that take into account not only the physical symptoms

of a disease but also the mental, emotional, and spiritual well-being of the patient. In the field of environmental management, this approach can be used to develop sustainable solutions that balance the needs of both people and the natural world.

5. Conclusion: The integration of science, management, and the Indian knowledge system has the potential to bring about positive change in many different fields. By combining the strengths of these different disciplines, it is possible to develop innovative and effective solutions to the complex challenges facing the world today.

Astronomy in India and Ancient India

- Astronomy in ancient India can be divided into two major classes. From the third-century BCE, India started having contact with Greece and other nations outside the subcontinent. So, the basic structure of Indian astronomy had outside influence although the astronomical concepts and the major parameters were India's own .
- Astronomy in ancient India developed to a sophisticated level as the sages of ancient India were keen observers of the sky generation after generation .
- The earliest references to astronomy are found in the Rig Veda, which are dated 2000 BC .
- Astronomy has a long history in the Indian subcontinent stretching from pre-historic to modern times. Some of the earliest roots of Indian astronomy can be dated to the period of Indus Valley civilization or earlier. Astronomy later developed as a discipline of Vedanga, or one of the "auxiliary disciplines" associated with the study of the Vedas .
- One of the most accomplished of the ancient Indian astronomers was Brahmagupta, who was born in 598 and died around 665. He had a profound and direct influence on Islamic and Byzantine astronomy .

Chemistry in India and Ancient India

- Chemistry in ancient India was called "Rasayana" in Sanskrit, the language in vogue .
- Rasayana derived its name from "Rasa," which means "extract," maybe from roots, leaves, and stems of plants .
- India has a very ancient tradition of chemistry .
- In ancient texts, amazing information is available on metals, ores, their quarries, compounds, and alloys .
- There are also details of hundreds of devices used in chemical experiments in 'Rasayan Shastra' which we call 'chemistry' .
- Ancient India's development in chemistry was not confined but found development in a variety of practical activities .

- Chemical techniques in India can be traced back all the way to the Indus valley or Harappan civilization (3rd millennium BCE) .

Mathematics in India and Ancient India

- In ancient India, mathematics or ‘Ganita’ was the ‘Science of Calculations’. It was primarily studied in the context of numerical computation and geometric measurement.
- Most of the Indian mathematical work can be found as a part of ‘Jyotisha’ or Astronomy.
- The history of Indian mathematics dates back to the vedic period (around 1500 B.C.).
- Mathematics in ancient India was so well developed that the body of knowledge was not restricted only to the elite scholars. It was prevalently used even by the common people in their daily activities and profession.
- The origin of the ancient mathematics can be traced to the Indus valley civilization. There are some artifacts that clearly give the evidence of mathematical knowledge of the Indus valley people.
- Indian mathematics emerged in the Indian subcontinent from 1200 BCE until the end of the 18th century. In the classical period of Indian mathematics (400 CE to 1200 CE), important contributions were made by scholars like Aryabhata, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara II, and Varāhamihira.
- Indian mathematicians made seminal contributions to the study of trigonometry, algebra, arithmetic and negative numbers among other areas. Perhaps most significantly, the Indian concept of zero has revolutionized the entire field of mathematics.

Physics in India and Ancient India

- The Nyaya and Vaisheshika philosophies encouraged a scientific culture in ancient India .
- Achievements of the glorious era of physics in ancient India are highlighted in this article. Our seers and scholars in the Vedic era made pioneering contributions to astronomy and basic physics, most of which have now been vindicated by rigorous theory and/or experiments .
- Ancient Indian theories lacked an empirical base, but they were brilliant imaginative explanations of the physical structure of the world, and in a large measure, agreed with the discoveries of modern physics .
- Early Indian thinkers developed a number of theoretical systems which centered around two main themes: elements and atoms. Based upon a relatively broad review of the ancient philosophies, we will discover a rich scientific tradition in India .
- In Indian philosophy, Maharishi Kanada was the first to systematically develop a theory of atomism around 200 BCE . It was further elaborated

by the Buddhist atomists Dharmakirti and Dignāga during the 1st millennium CE .

Agriculture in India and Ancient India

- Agriculture has a long history in India, with the domestication of plants and animals reported in the subcontinent by 9000 BC .
- The excavation of the Mehrgarh period sites, around 8000-6000 BC, provides evidence of early Indian agriculture .
- In ancient India, agriculture was associated with religious customs and traditions, particularly among the Vedic people who were skilled in cultivation .
- A wide range of crops were cultivated in ancient India, including rice, sugarcane, millets, black pepper, various grains, coconuts, beans, cotton, plantain, tamarind, and sandalwood .
- Agriculture in the Ganges River valley became increasingly developed after about 3000 BP .
- Indian subcontinent agriculture was the largest producer of wheat and grain .
- Settled life soon followed with implements and techniques being developed for agriculture .

Medicine in India and Ancient India

- Ayurveda is the most ancient system of Indian medicine which is gaining importance now in India.
- In the last part of the Vedic period, Indians attained a high degree of knowledge and wisdom due to which they were cultivated medicine, surgery, materia medica (medical material/substance), and chemistry.
- The ancient Indian system of medicine is thought to be the most methodical and holistic, both in terms of ideas and curative measures.
- Some of the most ancient practices of medicine and surgery were conducted here in India.
- Indian medicine has a long history. Its earliest concepts are set out in the sacred writings called the Vedas, especially in the metrical passages of the Atharvaveda, which may possibly date as far back as the 2nd millennium BCE.
- The ancient Indian medical system, also known as Ayurveda, is based on ancient writings that rely on a “natural” and holistic approach to physical and mental health. Ayurvedic medicine is one of the world’s oldest medical systems and remains one of India’s traditional health care systems.

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

- Copper metallurgy in India dates back to the Chalcolithic societies in the subcontinent, according to spectrometric tests on copper ore samples discovered from ancient mine pits at Khetri in Rajasthan and metal samples cut from representative Harappan artefacts unearthed from Mitathal in Haryana.
- The ‘seven metals of antiquity’, as they are sometimes called, were, more or less in order of discovery: gold, copper, silver, lead, tin, iron and mercury. For over 7,000 years, India has had a high tradition of metallurgical skills.
- The history of metallurgy in the Indian subcontinent began prior to the 3rd millennium BCE. Metals and related concepts were mentioned in various early Vedic age texts. The Rigveda already uses the Sanskrit term *Ayas* (अयस) (metal).
- Zinc was extracted in India as early as in the 4th to 3rd century BCE. Zinc production may have begun in India, and ancient northwestern India is the earliest known civilization that produced zinc on an industrial scale. The distillation technique was developed around 1200 CE at Zawar in Rajasthan.
- The direct reduction method of iron extraction was used for a fairly long period in India’s history. Ancient Indians were masters in the production of iron and steel.
- Archeological studies reveal that iron working in India may have begun as early as 1800 BCE, and that by the early 13th century BCE, iron smelting was definitely practiced on a large scale.

Geography in India and Ancient India

India has a diverse landscape that includes snow-capped mountains, deserts, plains, hills, and plateaus. The country is named after the River Indus . In ancient times, the geography of India was slightly different from what it is today. The Himalayan Mountains stand in the northern part of India, while the Hindu Kush stands in the northwest. The southern region of India is surrounded by three bodies of water .

Some key points about the geography of ancient India include: - The Indian subcontinent is a diverse and fertile region with monsoons, droughts, plains, mountains, deserts, and especially rivers, along which early cities developed in the third millennium B.C . - Along with Mesopotamia, Egypt, China, and Mesoamerica, the ancient Indian subcontinent was one of the few places in the world to develop its own civilization . - Ancient India was bounded to the north by large mountains and to the south by the Indian Ocean. Major rivers flowed from the northern mountains .

Biology in India and Ancient India

- In the Vedic period, observations of plants and animals were carried out and recorded. It has been observed in the Vedic literature that 740 plants and 250 animals were recorded.
- Indian civilization probably dates back to about 6000 B.C. Information about biology in ancient India comes from VEDAS, a collection of four Sanskrit texts.
- Some researchers, using proper scientific method, have proclaimed that biology in ancient India was not only at an advanced stage, but even better than the 20th century biological knowledge.
- As early as 2500 B.C.E., the people of northwestern India had a well-developed science of agriculture. The ruins at Mohenjo-daro have yielded seeds of wheat and barley that were cultivated at that time. Millet, dates, melons, and other fruits and vegetables, as well as cotton, were known to the civilization.
- There is a project of History of Indian Science, Philosophy and Culture, Monograph series, Volume 3. Mathematics, Astronomy and Biology in Indian Tradition edited by D. P. Chattopadhyaya and Ravinder Kumar.

Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India

The Harappan Civilization, also known as the Indus River Valley Civilization, existed from 3300-1300 BCE and extended from modern-day northeast Afghanistan to Pakistan and northwest India. This civilization was known for its important innovations and technological advancements, some of which are listed below:

1. **Standardized weights and measures:** The Harappans developed a system of standardized weights and measures, which helped in trade and commerce.
2. **Seal carving:** The Harappans were skilled in seal carving, which was used for marking goods and for identification.
3. **Metallurgy:** The Harappans were skilled in metallurgy and worked with metals such as copper, bronze, lead, and tin. They developed new techniques in metallurgy and were considered a Bronze Age society.
4. **Handicraft:** The Harappans were skilled in handicraft and used semi-precious gemstones such as carnelian to create intricate designs.
5. **Hydraulic structures:** The Harappans were advanced in the field of hydrology and water resources management. They constructed sophisticated hydraulic structures and had systems for wastewater disposal and treatment.

These are just some of the technological advancements of the Harappan Civilization. They were a highly advanced society and their innovations and tech-

nologies had a lasting impact on the world.

Water Management in India and Ancient India

1. **Visvesvarayya**, the architect of water management in modern India, took inspiration from the ancient civilizations. Not only in water management, ancient Indian technology adopted simple, effective and sustainable methods in the domain of water treatment too (eg. reducing fluoride levels by adding Tulasi, Vetiver, and Drumsticks).
2. Hydrologic knowledge in India has a historical footprint extending over several millennia through the **Harappan civilization** (3000 –1500 BCE) and the **Vedic Period** (1500 –500 BCE). As in other ancient civilizations across the world, the need to manage water propelled the growth of hydrologic science in ancient India.
3. **Mohenjo-Daro** and **Dholavira**, the two major cities of the Indus Valley, are the best examples of advanced water management and drainage systems. The **Great Bath** of Mohenjo-Daro of the Indus Valley is considered the “earliest public water tank of the ancient world” (Mujumdar and Jain, 2018).
4. The groundwater level in India is estimated to have declined by **61%** between 2007 and 2017. The depletion of this vital resource not only threatens people’s access to drinking water but also....
5. The Harappan civilization epitomizes the level of development of water sciences in ancient India that includes construction of sophisticated hydraulic structures, wastewater disposal systems....

Textile Technology in India and Ancient India

- Textiles was a great industry in ancient India. Some of the finest cloth in the world was from India. Textiles became one of the major commodities of trade between India and other countries.
- Cotton was also cultivated in India before anywhere else.
- The textile technology was highly developed in India. India was probably the first nation where the production of cotton fiber and the manufacture of textiles had started.
- India was highly skilled in making cotton fabrics like China for silk. Indian cotton fabric was prized for its whiteness and fineness.
- The manufacturing of cotton into cloth by tools is an ancient art in India.
- The earliest surviving Indian cotton threads date to around 4000 BC and dyed fabrics from the region are documented as far back as 2500 BC.
- In ancient Greece and Babylon, the very name ‘India’ was shorthand for ‘cotton’.
- India’s textiles are embedded in every aspect of its identity.
- The story of textiles in India is one of the oldest in the world and goes back to prehistoric times.
- Concrete evidence of textile production and use starts appearing from the

proto-historic times i.e. 3rd Millennium BCE.

Writing Technology in India and Ancient India

- The Indic writing systems include the syllabic Kharosthi and semialphabetic Brahmi scripts of ancient India. No systems of writing subsequently developed from the Kharosthi script.
- Many phones and computers in India are not specifically designed with Indic script keyboards and instead use the Roman alphabet keyboards common in the West. Transliteration software renders this moot. The increased use of Indic-language scripts has also lead to newer and more artistic fonts for Indian languages.
- While India's scripts are ancient, technology and modernity are changing their usage patterns, and are in fact allowing them to thrive as never before in standardized and widely used forms.
- Ancient Indian scripts have been used in the history of the Indian subcontinent as writing systems. The Indian subcontinent consists of various separate linguistic communities, each of which share a common language and culture. The people of the ancient India wrote in many scripts which largely have common roots.

Pyrotechnics in India and Ancient India

- One of the earliest notes of pyrotechnical shows in India is made by Abdur Razzaq, the ambassador of the Timurid Sultan Shahrukh to the court of the Vijayanagar king Devaraya II in 1443 .
- Fireworks and pyrotechnic shows existed as a form of royal entertainment in many medieval Indian kingdoms during festivals, events and special occasions like weddings .
- Manufacturing formulas for fireworks describing pyrotechnic mixtures are found within Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Orissa .
- There is no mention of fireworks in India before the end of the 15th century .
- Foreign travellers like Verthama have chronicled their use in Vijayanagar Empire .
- Kautuk Chintamani, compiled by Gajapati Pratap Chandra Rudra Dev of Orissa around the same time, also describes pyrotechnics as expensive amusement, fit for rulers and the very rich .

Trade in Ancient India

- Trade was an important source of commerce in ancient India.
- Ancient Mesopotamian texts mention Magan and Meluhha, which are thought to refer to India generally or, perhaps, Mohenjo-Daro specifically.

- Artifacts from the Indus Valley region have been found at sites in Mesopotamia, though their precise point of origin in India is not always clear.
- Much of the significant data for long-distance and maritime trade across South Asia in the ancient period comes from archaeological sources.
- Textual sources also provide interesting and significant information about material culture and trade in the ancient world.

India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India

- The Indus Valley civilization existed around the Indus River between 3300 to 1300 BCE. It is also referred to as the Harappan Civilization.
- Starting with the 16th century, parts of India were organized in different empires and kingdoms. Some of the most important empires in Indian territory were the Mughal Empire (1526- 1857), the Maratha Empire (1674-1818), and the Sikh Empire (1799-1849). The Mughal Empire was ruled by a Muslim dynasty, influenced by Persian culture.
- India's history dates back to 2500 BC, which was when the Indus Valley cities were just starting to grow. There were a number of empires ruling India from 2500 BC to 1857 AD including Mauryans, Guptas, Turks, Muslim, Mogul and more.
- During the Gupta empire—from about 320 to 550 CE—emperors used Hinduism as a unifying religion and helped popularize it by promoting educational systems that included Hindu teachings; they also gave land to brahmins. The Gupta emperors helped make Hinduism the most popular religion on the Indian subcontinent.
- In the 1700s much of India was divided into individual principalities and different empires.

Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

Cultural heritage refers to the legacy of physical artifacts and intangible attributes of a group or society that are inherited from past generations, maintained in the present, and bestowed for the benefit of future generations. Cultural heritage includes tangible culture (such as buildings, monuments, landscapes, books, works of art, and artifacts), intangible culture (such as folklore, traditions, language, and knowledge), and natural heritage (including culturally significant landscapes, and biodiversity).

Performing arts are a form of art in which artists use their voices, bodies, or inanimate objects to convey artistic expression. It is different from visual arts, which is when artists use paint, canvas, or various materials to create physical or static art objects. Performing arts include a range of disciplines which are performed in front of a live audience, including theatre, music, dance, opera, and circus arts.

Some key points to remember about cultural heritage and performing arts are:

1. Cultural heritage is the legacy of physical artifacts and intangible attributes of a group or society that are inherited from past generations.
2. Cultural heritage includes tangible culture, intangible culture, and natural heritage.
3. Performing arts are a form of art in which artists use their voices, bodies, or inanimate objects to convey artistic expression.
4. Performing arts include a range of disciplines which are performed in front of a live audience.
5. Cultural heritage and performing arts are important for preserving and sharing the history, traditions, and values of a group or society.

Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times

Indian architecture is rooted in the history, culture, and religion of India. Among several architectural styles and traditions, the best-known include the many varieties of Hindu temple architecture and Indo-Islamic architecture, especially Rajput architecture, Mughal architecture, South Indian architecture and Indo-Saracenic architecture .

The Mauryan period is considered as the beginning of the classical period of Indian architecture. Nagara and Dravidian architectural styles developed in the early medieval period with the rise of Hindu revivalism and predominant role of Hindu temple architecture in the Indian Subcontinent .

The advent of the 20th century saw a growth in the economy as well as the population, this, in turn, created a high demand for housing. Globalisation and a migratory population led to a shift in Indian architecture from a holistic point of view .

Some examples of ancient Indian architecture include the Ajanta caves, the Humayun Tomb, and Hampi .

Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India

1. India has a rich cultural heritage of engineering and architecture that spans over thousands of years.
2. The ancient Indian civilization was known for its advanced knowledge in fields such as mathematics, astronomy, and engineering.
3. This knowledge was applied in the construction of magnificent temples, palaces, and other structures that have stood the test of time.
4. Some of the most famous examples of ancient Indian architecture include the Taj Mahal, the Khajuraho temples, and the Sun Temple at Konark.
5. These structures are not only aesthetically pleasing, but also showcase the advanced engineering techniques used in their construction.

6. For example, the Taj Mahal was built using a complex system of wells and water channels to transport materials to the construction site.
7. The Khajuraho temples are known for their intricate carvings and sculptures, which were created using advanced stone-cutting techniques.
8. The Sun Temple at Konark is an architectural marvel, with its intricate carvings and precise alignment with the movements of the sun.
9. These structures, and many others like them, are a testament to the advanced engineering and architectural knowledge of ancient India.
10. They are an important part of India's cultural heritage and continue to attract visitors from all over the world.

Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India

Sculpture art is one of the oldest art forms to exist in India, rooting itself as a widespread practice even in the ancient Indus Valley Civilisation (c.3300-1300 BCE). India is known to hold a variety of sculpture art- depicting the Indian Culture along with a varied significance.

Some of the famous sculptures in India are: 1. The Dancing Girl, Mohen Jo Daro, c. 2500 BC- The sculpture of the popular 'Moving Girl', observed to be in the hours of Harappa. 2. Ashoka Pillar, Sarnath, third Century B.C.- The most praised capital (the four-lion one at Sarnath (Uttar Pradesh)). 3. Buddha.

Indian sculpture artists have always been fascinated by figures from mythology and religion as it runs strongly in our culture. Sculptures of Hindu gods and goddesses, Lord Buddha, figures from Christianity and so on are some of the most common themes in sculpture art as seen from the ancient times.

The subject matter of Indian sculpture was almost invariably abstracted human forms that were used to instruct people in the truths of the Hindu, Buddhist, or Jain religions. The nude was used both to represent the body as a symbol of spirit and to reveal the imagined shapes of the gods.

Cultural awareness promotes a better understanding of our heritage to effectively safeguard and spread India's rich intangible and tangible cultural art heritage, such as paintings and sculptures.

Seals as Cultural Heritage of India

1. Seals have been an integral part of the traditions and cultural heritage of India. They have been used for thousands of years for various purposes, including trade, and have been found in abundance across the expanse of the Indus Valley Civilization .
2. The famous seals of the Indus Valley Civilization are small rectangular pieces that have been called seals as their imprint has been found on clay pieces with remnants of cloth fiber. They are also found in circular and cylindrical shapes.

3. One of the most commonly discovered artifacts in Indus Valley cities are seals decorated with animal figures, such as elephants, tigers, and water buffalos.
4. The Pashupati seal is one of the most famous seals from the Indus Valley Civilization. It is currently housed in the National Museum in New Delhi.
5. Seals of Ancient India provide us with useful information about the civilization of the Indus Valley and its trade practices.

Coins as Cultural Heritage of India

1. The history of coins of India originates from the years of Indus Valley civilisation. Cowry Shells were the first to be used as a symbol of money. Sites like Harappa and Mohenjo Daro show the use of metal coins as a means of trading and exchange of goods .
2. Gold coins in ancient India reached their peak with the Gupta emperors from the 3rd to 6th century AD. This was India's Golden Age, where there was prosperity all around, and people lived the good life, full of culture and joy .
3. The Coinage of India has played a very important role in the history of economic development of the country ever since its inception. The motifs, symbols, stamp used on the Indian coins since ancient times depict a lot about the rulers and their reign. Many archaeologists and explorers have done a deep analysis of these ancient Indian coins .
4. Many dynasties ruled over India and each of them introduced their coins which depicted their culture and beliefs. These coins are generally placed between the 2nd century BC and 2nd century AD .

Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

Pottery in the Indian subcontinent has an ancient history and is one of the most tangible and iconic elements of Indian art. Evidence of pottery has been found in the early settlements of Lahuradewa and later the Indus Valley Civilisation. Today, it is a cultural art that is still practiced extensively in Indian subcontinent.

Pottery plays an important role in studying culture and reconstructing the past. From flower pots, terracotta chimes to the thirst-quenching suraahi and matki, pottery is practised across the length and breadth of the country. A visit to the countryside and “potter’ villages” speaks volumes about the economic importance of this craft.

Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India

- Puppetry is one of India's most diverse cultural heritages, with a variety of regional genres .

- Indian puppetry is a subject as varied as the many cultural traditions of the Indian subcontinent .
- Puppetry has been in India a means of entertainment and a form of cultural and religious dissemination .
- In the post-colonial period, the high-speed modernization wave that invested India put many of the puppetry traditions at risk of extinction .
- Several government and private initiatives contributed to save endangered styles, but many are still at risk .
- Indian Heritage Puppetry is a fascinating art form that has always sparked curiosity from an audience of all ages .
- Contemplating the life sagas of great monarchs and heroes of this type in rural India is quite popular .
- Emerging from the grassroots level, the identification of puppetry in India varies from one location to the other .
- Aside from traditional puppetry, India has a thriving contemporary puppetry culture .

Dance as Cultural Heritage of India

Dance is an integral part of the rich cultural heritage of India. It is a form of art that has been used for centuries to express emotions, tell stories, and celebrate important events. Here are some key points about dance as a cultural heritage of India:

1. India has a diverse range of classical dance forms, each with its own unique style and technique. Some of the most well-known classical dance forms include Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, Manipuri, Mohiniyattam, Odissi, and Sattriya.
2. These classical dance forms have their origins in ancient Hindu temples, where they were performed as a form of worship. Over time, they evolved into sophisticated art forms that were performed in courts and theaters.
3. Dance is also an important part of Indian folk culture. Each region of India has its own folk dance traditions, which are often performed during festivals and celebrations.
4. Indian dance has also influenced other art forms, such as cinema. Bollywood, the Indian film industry, is known for its elaborate song and dance sequences.
5. Dance is not only a form of entertainment in India, but also a means of preserving and passing on cultural traditions. Many classical dance forms have their own distinct costumes, makeup, and jewelry, which are carefully preserved and passed down from generation to generation.
6. In recent years, there has been a renewed interest in traditional Indian dance forms, both within India and abroad. Many dance schools and

academies have been established to teach classical and folk dance to new generations of students.

In conclusion, dance is an important part of India's cultural heritage, and continues to play a vital role in the country's artistic and cultural life. It is a rich and diverse art form that reflects the history and traditions of India, and is enjoyed by people of all ages and backgrounds.

Music as Cultural Heritage of India

1. India is a land of cultural diversities. Every region in India has its own form of folk music. This rich tradition of folk music is very much alive in not just rural India, but also in some metros.
2. The music of India includes Indian classical music, multiple varieties of folk, popular, pop, and, most recently, rock music. The origins of Indian classical music can be found in the oldest Hindu scriptures, the Vedas.
3. There are two major traditions of Indian classical music. They are Carnatic music, a style associated with South India, and Hindustani music, a style associated with North India.
4. Indian music always has had strong ties with mythology and religion and thus produced an art that is as different from Western music as Hinduism is from Christianity. It achieves unity through similarity rather than through change.
5. The music of India is as diverse as its many cultures. India has over a billion people and hundreds of dialects and languages spread across the seventh largest country in the world, but there is still an undeniable "sound" that makes Indian music unmistakable.

Theatre as Cultural Heritage of India

1. India has a long, rich and illustrious history of folk theatre. Folk theatre is a composite art form in India, with a fusion of elements from music, dance, and many forms. It has deep roots in local identity and native culture and is an important indigenous tool of interpersonal communication .
2. India has the most ancient form of theatre as textual, sculptural, and dramatic -the Natya Shastra. It is the authentic text of theatre art, originated around 500 BC. It is classical and written in Sanskrit by Bharat Muni .
3. Theatre in ancient India played a major role in the overall enrichment of Indian tradition, culture, artistry and creativity since the remote past. The origin of theatre in ancient India has been marked as the result of the religious ritualism of the "Vedic Aryans" .
4. As theatre developed in India and began to flourish again, three types of historical Indian theatre evolved: the classical period, the traditional period, and the modern period .

5. The traditional regional forms of theatre have today reached the stage of heritage, with some, such as Koodiyattam officially being recognized by UNESCO as a Masterpiece of the Oral and Intangible Heritage of Humanity .
6. Kutiyattam, Sanskrit theatre, which is practised in the province of Kerala, is one of India's oldest living theatrical traditions. Originating more than 2,000 years ago, Kutiyattam represents a synthesis of Sanskrit classicism and reflects the local traditions of Kerala .

Drama as Cultural Heritage of India

- Traditional theatre has been prevalent in India since ancient times. It was enacted by bards who traveled from one village to another. The stories were based on epics of Mahabharat and Ramayan, as well as, the Puranas and Upanishads.
- Indian drama has originated and developed from the storehouse of Sanskrit in India. It has given its incredible impact and limit to perfection since ancient times. Drama is basically a form of performing arts, where stories are enacted by the utilization of dialogue, music, signal, and dance.
- Since the beginning of our civilization, music, dance, and drama have been an integral aspect of our culture. Initially, these art forms were used as a medium of propagation for religion and social reforms in which music and dance were incorporated to gain popularity. From the Vedic era to the medieval period, the performing arts remained an important source of educating the masses.
- Indian drama is a performance style all its own, including combinations of speech, gesture, music, dance, and sound. Indian drama was highly uninfluenced by other cultures.
- Urdu Drama evolved from the prevailing dramatic traditions of North India shaping Rahas or Raas as practiced by exponents like Wajid Ali Shah, Nawab of Awadh. His dramatic experiments led to the famous Inder Sabha of Agha Hasan Amanat and later this tradition took the shape of Parsi theatre.

Painting as Cultural Heritage of India

- Indian art forms are a part of the rich culture and heritage of India. Beautiful bursts of color with vivid patterns and symbolic images capture the culture beautifully on the canvas.
- Indian art is among the oldest in the world, with archaeologists discovering paintings that were created over 70,000 years ago. Therefore, Indian paintings hold a special place in history and continue to influence artists to this day.

- Traditional art in India depicted cultural, religious, and political developments through clever metaphors.
- The earliest known Indian paintings can be dated to pre-historic times, such as those found in places like Bhimbetka rock shelters in Madhya Pradesh.
- Each painting style that arose in India symbolized traditions, practices, and ideas that had been passed down from past generations. Though early Indian paintings were created on walls, the art form was later adapted to more contemporary materials such as paper, fabric, canvas, and other materials.
- India has one of the world's largest collections of songs, music, dance, theatre, folk traditions, performing arts, rites and rituals, paintings, and writings that are known as the 'Intangible Cultural Heritage' (ICH) of humanity.

Martial Arts Traditions of India

- Martial arts are codified systems and traditions of combat practices, which are practised for a variety of reasons – self-defence, competition, physical health and fitness, entertainment, as well as mental, physical, and spiritual development.
- India has an ancient tradition in diverse martial arts.
- India's Martial traditions originated in South India.
- India has its own wrestling art called Khusti.
- Indian Martial arts have influenced Asian martial arts in significant ways.
- Kushti is one of the most popular martial arts in India. It started off during the Mughal times where Malla Yuddha, a local sport was combined with a Persian sport named Varzesh-e-Bastani.
- Indian martial arts refers to the fighting systems of the Indian subcontinent. A variety of terms are used for the English phrases "Indian martial arts", deriving from ancient sources. While they may seem to imply specific disciplines (e.g. archery, armed combat), by Classical times they were used generically for all fighting systems.
- Kalaripayattu is often known as the 'Mother Of All Martial Arts', this 3000-year old art form originating from Kerala, draws inspiration from the raw power, swift movements and sinuous strength of majestic animals – the lion, tiger, elephant, wild boar, snake and crocodile.
- The ancient Manipuri Martial Art, also known as Huyen Lallong, is Thang-Ta. Swords and spears are used in Manipuri Martial arts, a powerful yet gracefully complex technique.
- Lathi is India's oldest armed martial art. It is also regarded as one of the world's earliest martial arts weapons.

Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

India is known for its vibrant and diverse culture, which is reflected in the numerous fairs and festivals celebrated throughout the country. These events are an integral part of the country's cultural heritage and provide a glimpse into the rich traditions and customs of its people.

Some of the most famous fairs and festivals in India include:

1. **Modhera Dance Festival of Gujarat:** Also known as Uttarardh Mahotsava, this festival is a cultural celebration held within the premises of the Modhera Sun Temple.
2. **Pongal of South India:** Pongal is a harvest festival celebrated in the southern part of the country.
3. **Konark Dance Festival of Odisha:** This festival celebrates the classical dance forms of India.
4. **Jaisalmer Desert Festival:** This festival is held in the desert city of Jaisalmer and celebrates the rich culture and heritage of Rajasthan.
5. **Goa Carnival:** This festival is celebrated in the state of Goa and is known for its colorful parades and lively music.
6. **Nehru Trophy Boat Race of Kerala:** This boat race is held in the backwaters of Kerala and is a popular event among locals and tourists alike.
7. **Pushkar Mela:** This fair is held in the town of Pushkar in Rajasthan and is one of the largest camel fairs in the world.
8. **Bikaner Camel Festival:** This festival is held in the city of Bikaner in Rajasthan and celebrates the importance of camels in the region.

These are just a few examples of the many fairs and festivals celebrated in India. Each event is unique and provides a glimpse into the rich cultural heritage of the country.

Current developments in Arts and Cultural in India

1. **Statue of Prosperity**
2. **3 Indian Cities in UNESCO Network of Learning Cities** - Recently, three cities in India have joined the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities. These include two cities Thrissur and Nilambur in Kerala and Warangal in Telangana .
3. **Dharohar – National Museum of Customs and GST**
4. **New Finds at Rakhigarhi - A Harappan Site**
5. **‘Devayatanam’ – An Odyssey of Indian Temple Architecture**
6. **Republic Day Parade Awards 2022**
7. **India nominates Hoysala Temples for inscription in the World Heritage List**
8. **India gets back Goat-Headed Yogini Statue**
9. **Emerging Waves of Art and Culture in India** - India's significant cultural capital includes: 37 world heritage sites; two thriving film industries

and many smaller ones as well; and a diversely vibrant cultural heritage. A number of tier 1 and tier 2 cities have been actively working towards creating a unique cultural identity for themselves .

10. **Financial Assistance for Cultural Activities** - The Ministry of Culture, Government of India provides financial assistance for cultural activities in performing arts for building grants including studio theatres, allied cultural activities, and Tagore Cultural Complexes (TCC) Scheme of Scholarship and Fellowship for Promotion of Art and Culture .

Indian's Cultural Contribution to the World

India has made numerous contributions to the world in various fields. Here are some of the most significant contributions:

1. **Mathematics:** Hindus were precursors to mathematics. They made significant contributions to the field of mathematics, including the invention of the concept of zero and the decimal system.
2. **Architecture:** India is known for its picturesque and quirky urban architecture.
3. **Textiles:** The cotton fabrics produced in India are among the best in the world.
4. **Medicine:** Hindus knew the technique to sterilize and use drugs to heal the sick.
5. **Language:** India is the richest linguistic nation in the world.
6. **Art:** India has a rich tradition of art, including painting, sculpture, literature, music, dance, and theatre.
7. **Culture:** Indian culture has greatly increased in prevalence and popularity over the last few decades. All aspects of Indian culture have manifested in various forms throughout popular American culture.

These are just a few examples of the many contributions India has made to the world. India's diverse and talented population has introduced many precious things to the world, and its contributions have become the base for several modern innovations.

Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India

- India is a powerhouse of performing arts, a colorful and multi-hued ritual that showcases talent like nothing else.
- In the years to come, cinema in India evolved further as a potent art form capable of mirroring socio-political and economic issues plaguing India with films like *Achhut Kanya* (1936) and *Sujata* (1959).

- The year 1931 proved to be a landmark for Indian cinema as it marked the end of the silent era with Ardeshir Irani making India's first sound film *Alam Ara*, made in Hindi/Urdu.
- The early commercial success of Phalke's films not only paved the way for more such motion pictures but also set the ball rolling for cinema as a commercial art form.
- Indian cinema is known for producing the largest number of films in the world. India has one of Asia's largest film industries and employs thousands of people. The Indian film industry makes films in Hindi, Telugu, Tamil, Bhojpuri, and other languages.